Tol (Jicaque) [draft]

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1 Introduction

The Tol language has been treated in a small number of journal articles and book length publications, some areas in more depth than others. In the present chapter we aim to enhance available information about this language, focusing particularly on the areas in which information is sparse, while at times engaging in a discussion with earlier analyses. Due to confines of space and to the particular focus of our own research, some areas will necessarily receive more attention than others. We will not deal at any length with phonology, verb morphology or historical reconstruction, and for the most up-to-date information on these topics we refer the reader to Holt (1999), and specifically on historical reconstruction to Campbell and Oltrogge (1980). See section 2.2 for our presentation and assessment of existing publications.

The chapter is structured as follows: An introduction to the Jicaquean language family, demographic data on speakers and history of research, noun morphology (number, possession and focus), syntax (phrase types, clause types, negation, information structure and TAM clitics).

2 Jicaquean

Jicaquean is a small language family with only two members: Western Jicaque, a language formerly spoken in north-western Honduras and of which only short word lists are known, and Eastern Jicaque spoken until recently across the Department of Yoro. One variant of Eastern

Jicaque, today more commonly known as Tol, is still spoken today in Central Honduras in the north of the Department of Fransisco Morazán towards the borders with Yoro and Olancho (Campbell and Oltrogge 1980, 205). The map in Figure 1 shows the Tol speaking area and select settlements with highest numbers of speakers.

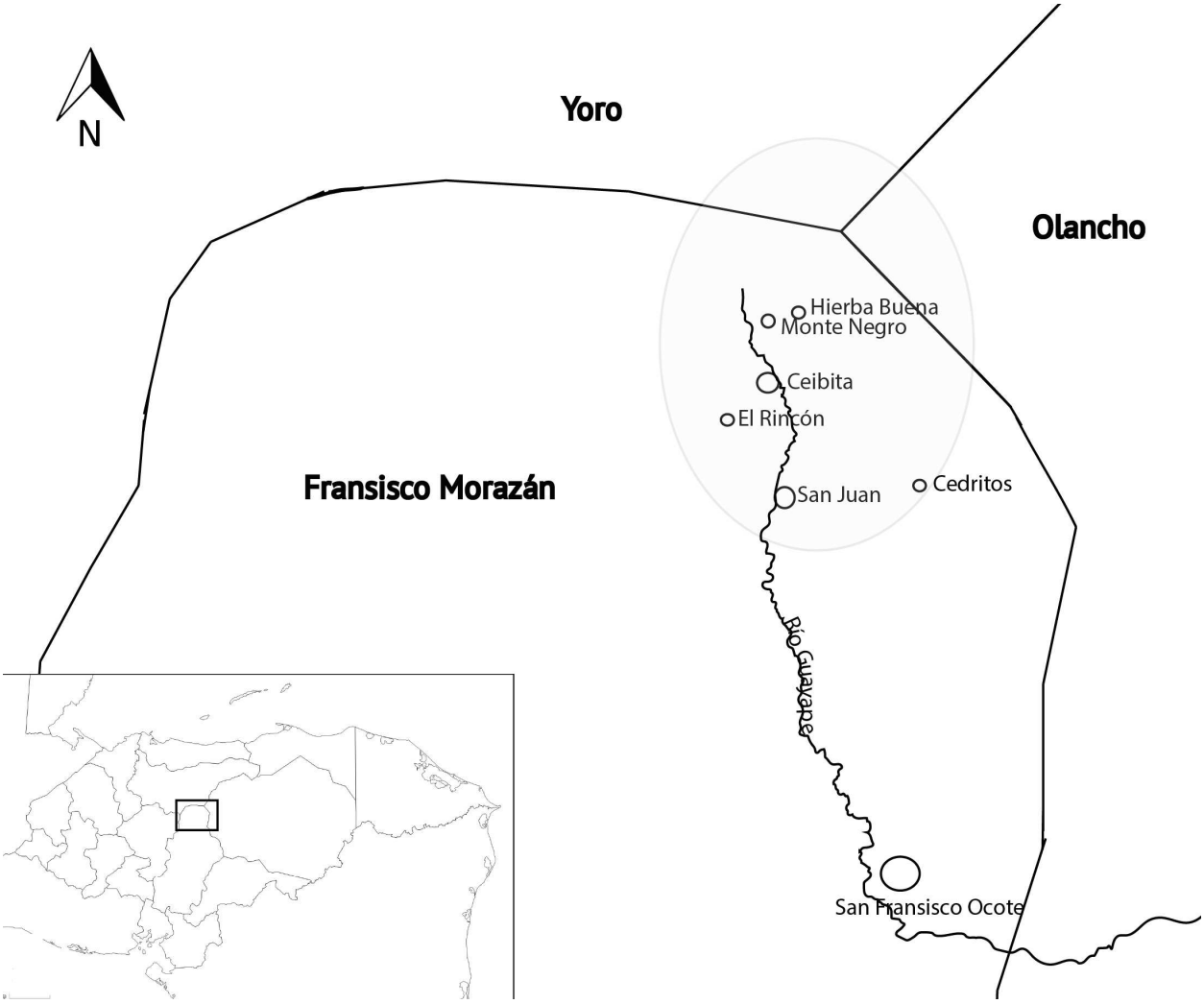

Figure 1: Map of Tol speaking area (by Haurholm-Larsen).

We find the term *Jicaque*, also written *Xicaque*, mostly in older sources, while the speakers' own term, the autoethnonym *Tol* or *Tolpan*, is more commonly used in the more recent literature. The word *Jicaque* was used in colonial times by people coming from the western part of the Spanish empire (know in Spanish as *Nueva España* 'New Spain'). The term applied not only to the modern day Tolpan (or variants *tolupan*/*torupan*[1] both containing the plural suffix *-pan*) but also to various other non-sedentary peoples in the less explored regions of the empire, including modern day Honduras. One previously proposed etymology for *Jicaque* derives it from a Nahuatl word *chicahuacquê*, *chicacquê* or *chicàtic* meaning 'old; robust; strong; valiant' (Chapman

[1] Variation between [l] and [r] is rampant (see the phonology section) and a vowel [u] or [ə] is inserted to break up the unlicensed consonant cluster.

1992, 13). There can be no doubt of the Nahuatl origin of *Jicaque*. Nahuatl was the lengua franca of the Aztec empire and continued in use during the subsequent centuries, even outside of the area where Nahuatl is spoken today (Von Hagen 1943, 2). However, the proposed etymology is unlikely because Nahuatl [ch] would probably not have been borrowed into Spanish as the voiceless postalveolar fricative [x] (which in Honduran Spanish has subsequently become [h]) but instead simply as [ch] as it was in cases such as *chacalin* 'a freshwater crustacean sp.' from Nahuatl *chacalin* or *chilate* 'a kind of atol' from Nahuatl *chilatl*. More likely, the source was /sh/ (generally written <x> in older documents), as in the cases of *jicara* 'drinking gourd' from Nahuatl *xicalli* and *jilote* 'tender maiz' from Nahuatl *xilotl*. This suggests a possible etymology from *xiccaua* 'perder algo por su culpa y negligencia, o no curar de su persona, o no hacer cuenta de si' [lose something by one's fault and negligence, or not take care of one's person, or not look out for oneself] (Molina et al. 1571, 159r). A plural participial form of *xiccaua* might be *xiccauhquê*, a likely source for Spanish *jicaque*. In addition to the phonological evidence, the etymology proposed here is also consistent with the tendency for exonyms to be derogatory. In a modern Honduran context *Jicaque* refers mainly to the ethnically Tolpan people living in Yoro, who no longer speak Tol. However, according the Real Academia Española, it is also used more generally to refer to somebody who is "huraña, retraída y poco sociable" [shy, withdrawn, and unsociable]. In addition, Oltrogge reports of a "limited modern usage meaning 'wild' or 'uncivilized'" (1977b, 8).

2.1 Tol speakers: Location, social context and writing

2.1.1 Migratory history

The Tolpan are said to have migrated from the north coast of Honduras due to pressure from the Spanish colonists until settling in Montaña de la Flor in Central Honduras, where they are located today (Von Hagen 1943; Lehmann 1920; Chapman 1992). However, the extent of the Tolpan homeland is extremely uncertain; we refer readers to the discussions by Campbell and Oltrogge (1980) and Chapman (1992) for the a full account of the founding of the Montaña de la Flor communities by people fleeing from Yoro in the mid 19th century, as well as to Chapman (1992) and Holt (1999) for grounded speculation about the possible prehistoric extent of Tolpan territory.

2.1.2 Political organization

The modern-day Tolpan are organized into 6 tribes with most speakers belonging to San Juan tribe, and lesser numbers to La Ceiba and La Guaruma tribes. The main settlement of San Juan tribe is the village of the same name, located nearest to main road that falls in from the nearest Ladino village, San Fransisco Ocote, connecting the Montaña de la Flor to the rest of the country (see map in Figure 1). Tribes are traditional units of government headed by a cacique, the holder of a patrilineally hereditary office who oversees all matter of public administration (see Chapman (1992, 37) for more information). While the traditional system still exists today, it now co-exists, and for many purposes has been replaced by, a Ladino style local government known as a *consejo* [council], which has taken over most of the administrative and decision-making duties of the cacique, particularly those pertaining to citizen registration, marriage and legal disputes.

2.1.3 Socio-linguistic context

According to a recent survey, there are almost 600 speakers of Tol (Haurholm-Larsen 2012). The main objective of the survey was to uncover the current number of speakers and their attitudes towards the language in order to assess its level of endangerment. The survey took the form of 31 interviews with speakers from a handful of different communities, but most of them from the village of San Juan (see map Figure 1). A community member was trained to form part of the survey as interviewer and contact person responsible for arranging interviews with speakers. Results indicated that most speakers are either highly tolerant towards inclinations of Tolpans to speak Spanish, or nearly indifferent towards such practices, while most opinions about the Tol language encountered in the survey can best be described as neutral. In some households all adults speak Tol as their first language. Households with non-Tol speaking mothers, however, tend to be dominated by Spanish among both adults and children. Outside of the home, the use of Spanish is more widespread, since doctors, nurses, shop keepers, coffee buyers, police officers, court personnel, municipal authorities, and most school and high school teachers are monolingual Spanish speakers.

Contact between the Tolpan and the outside world has greatly increased over the past 30 years mainly due to an influx of outsiders interested in coffee growing land. This has in turn motivated an expansion and improvement of the roads into the Montaña. As a result of this increased contact, Tol-Spanish bilingualism is quickly becoming the rule, with most adults speaking Spanish as their second language, and children growing up bilingually. The few monolingual speakers left live in the remotest and most inaccessible hamlets.

2.1.4 Writing and orthography

Literacy is on the rise among young adults and children since the introduction of schools in the past 20 years. However, literacy is almost entirely limited to Spanish with the exception that a handful of adults who have been involved in a Bible translation project carried out by linguists affiliated with SIL International (formerly know as the Summer Institute of Linguistics), have learned to write in Tol. The orthography introduced by SIL linguists was based largely on Spanish (see for instance Dennis and Dennis 1983). The orthography used in the present chapter is given in Table 1 (for consonants) and Table 2 (for vowels) next to the SIL orthographic symbols (parentheses).

Table 1: Consonants

	Labial	Alveolar	Alv. palatal	Velar	Glottal
Plain stop	p	t	c (ts)	k (c/q)	
Asp. Stop	ph (pj)	th (tj)	ch (tsj)	kh (cj/quj)	
Glot. Stop	p’	t’	c’ (ts’)	k’ (c’/qu’)	
Nasal	m	n		ng (ñ)	
Glide	w (v/u)			y	
Fricative	v				h (j)
Sibilant		s (s/c)			
Liquid		l / r			

Table 2: Vowels

i	ü [ɨ]	u
e [ɛ]		o [ɔ]
	a	

The new orthography was adopted in order to reduce the use of digraphs and eliminate bivalent graphemes such as both <s> and <c> for [s] and <qu> and <c> for [k], while also ensuring maximum accessibility in mainstream computer fonts. Stress falls on the penultimate syllable of words ending in a vowel, and on the final syllable on words ending in a consonant, unless otherwise marked. While primary word stress is generally restricted to the final or penultimate syllable of a word, it is important to include its representation in the orthography for three reasons: first, stress is phonemically contrastive in Tol; second, stress manipulation plays an important part of the complex verbal agreement patterning; and third, unstressed vowels in Tol show a pronounced tendency toward articulatory reduction. These reduction patterns, described in part by Holt (1999), include centralization, vowel harmony-like influence from surrounding vowels, and reduction in length. Consonants, especially stops, also seem to show a relatively high degree of variation in realization; glottalized stops may be realized only as creak on adjacent vowels, and the particular acoustic cues signalling the plain versus aspirated stop contrast are not entirely clear in all contexts. We suspect that a significant and mostly undiscussed obstacle in Tol studies so far arises from this wide range of variation and the apparent differences that it seems to create between phonetically-oriented transcriptions and phonologically-oriented orthographic representations. Because this chapter departs from the diachronic and (morpho)phonological focus of most of the past literature, we have attempted to represent most of our data orthographically at the level of phonology; in a few cases, it is difficult to determine whether some variation is phonetic or morphological in nature, as in the case of possessive marking discussed below. There are a number of phonotactic rules that are incompletely understood and that complicate orthographic choices, such as a series of apparent vowel harmony and neutralization rules, notably the apparent lack of contrast in word-final position between plain and aspirated stops.

2.2 Existing publications and proposed classifications

In an overview article such as the present it would not normally be possible to mention all of the existing literature even on a single language. However, given that Tol is as poorly described as is the case, the following literature review will be nearly exhaustive.

Publications on Tol can be divided into three groups based partly on their chronology and partly on the nature of their contribution.

Stage 1: Early descriptive work

The early discriptive work is found mainly in Membreño (1897), which is also the only surviving source for Western Jicaque of El Palmar. Lehmann (1920) is a reproduction of earlier sources including Membreño's data, while Conzemius (1923) is a mix of new data collected by the himself and what seems like reproduction from Membreño (Campbell and Oltrogge 1980). The above-cited works consist almost exclusively of word lists with almost no information on morphology and syntax.

Stage 2: Diachronic proposals

The second stage of Tol scholarship saw the first attempts at linking the language genealogically to other languages in the area. Prior to 1953, Tol had mostly been considered an isolate. This changed with Greenberg and Swadesh's (1953) classification of Tol as a Hokan language, building on the Hokan hypothesis developed by Dixon and Kroeber (1913). This would make Tol one of the southernmost outposts of a southward migration starting in the south of the modern-day United States. Later this was complemented by Oltrogge, who suggested a sub-classification by tying Tol to Chontal of Oaxaca (also known as Tequistlateco) in Mexico and to the extinct Subtiaba in Nicaragua (1977b). By implication, this would also tie Tol-Tequistlatec-Subtiaba to Oto-Manguean according to Oltrogge.

Campbell and Oltrogge (1980) offer some reconstructions of the shared ancestor of the two Jicaquean varieties, Western and Eastern Jicaque (Tol), presenting a reconstructed phoneme inventory and some cognate sets. In a short note towards the end of the paper, Campbell and Oltrogge express mild support for the connection with Chontal of Oaxaca connection, making no mention of Subtiaba. They strongly doubt any Hokan affiliation, as well as the validity of Hokan itself.

The external classification of Jicaquean remains in dispute today. Among the supporters of the Hokan hypothesis are Dennis and Fleming (1976), who compare Tol and Hokan noun suffixes looking for similarities, as well as Jorge Suarez (1983), who supports the Tol-Tequistlatec-Subtiaba grouping. Yasugi (1995), on the other hand, doubts the Tol-Tequistlateco connection but hints at other possible connections. Campbell (1997) believes in the possibility of Jicaque-Tequistlatec while recommending that the Subtiaba proposal be abandonded and also strongly rejects Hokan in general. Kaufman (2006) firmly believes in Tol as a Hokan language but not in a Tequistlatec-Jicaque connection.

Stage 3: Later description and texts

The latest stage of Tol scholarship has made substantial progress in the area of language description, work which is to a large extent attributable to members of SIL International. Fleming et al. (1975) propose an orthography for writing Tol and Dennis and Fleming (1976) is a first analysis of the phonology, setting the stage for work on the morphology and syntax. That paper also offers a brief account of the principal inflectional attributes of nouns, while Dennis (1990) offers an overview of the complex system of verb inflection. The first, and to date only, dictionary of Tol is Dennis and Dennis (1983) which contains around 1000 entries with example sentences, a section on nominal and verbal inflectional paradigms, and a Spanish reverse index. Published textual material includes a handful of short texts with translation in Shaw (1971), a translation of the New Testament in Wycliffe Bible Translators (2010), and a database of annotated texts and elicited material were collected by Haurholm-Larsen and is available at the Endangered Languages Archive at http://elar.soas.ac.uk/deposit/0118[2]. Oltrogge (1977a) is a description of tradtional Tolpan bee-keeping and how this is reflected in the language, and Lentz (1986) describes the way the Tolpan classify the natural environment. Although the contribution of these two publications is mainly lexical in nature, they are of high cultural importance and will prove of great value to the understanding of the language, the primary vehicle of cultural transmission. Finally, Holt (1999) provides a summary of previous descriptive literature in the

[2] Citations of the Haurholm-Larsen Database in our examples are given in the format "Bundle name">"begin time", e.g. "HT-2-1>00:16:04" referring to an annotated mp4-file named "HT-2-1" (short for Habla Tol, session 2, file 1) and the cited example starts at 00 hours, 16 minutes and 04 seconds.

shape of a grammatical sketch with minor additions from the author's own fieldwork (1999: 7). Holt also adds a deep structure perspective, particularly on verb inflection, in an attempt to derive a regular pattern from the observed verb forms, which are highly irregular. Holt's underlying forms might also serve as a hint at possible historical developments that may account for the synchronic irregularities.

3 Noun morphology

Nouns having inanimate referents, including plants and trees, are not marked for number. Nouns with human referents can be inflected for plural number, while other animate nouns can be pluralized by adding a nominal modifying word. While all nouns are may inflect for possession, using markers that agree with the possessor, nouns referring to kinship terms and body parts, obligatorily take such marking. The most elusive category of noun inflection consists of suffixes which past investigators have analyzed as optional case markers. We consider this analysis problematical and offer an alternative below.

3.1 Number

The ability for nouns to inflect for number in Tol is determined by degree of prominence, partly conditioned by animacy, where divine beings, such as angels and the gods of the East and the West, are at the top, together with adult humans. They are followed by children, stars, and large animals, which are in turn followed by small animals and everything else at the bottom, cf. Table 3. Examples of the number markers in Table 3 are given in individual sections below.

Table 3: Prominence scale according to number marking

	High animacy	**Medium animacy**	**Low animacy**
Category	divine creatures, adult humans	children, large animals, stars	small animals, all other things
Plural marking	*-pan*, (*ne-* / *no-*)	*-thakh*	-

3.1.1 Plural suffix *-pan*

The plural suffix *-pan* is used to pluralize human and divine entities with high prominence such as those listed in (1).

(1)	*tol*	'Tol person'	*tol-pan*	'Tol people'
	pwekeph	'thief'	*pweka-pan*	'thieves'
	lapanen[3]	'demon'	*lapanen-pan*	'demons'
			ne'es-pan[4]	'the Magi'

[3] This can most likely be analyzed further, (perhaps as *la pal nen* 'who looks for demons') because Dennis and Dennis (1983) have an entry *nen* 'demonio específico'. However, in Wycliffe Bible Translators (2010) we find singular *lapanen* and plural *lapanenpan*. Dennis and Fleming (1976) give *napanenpan*; perhaps not particularly surprising in light of the distributional relationship in Tol between [n], [l], [d] and [r]. According to Shaw (1971) *napanenpan* must appear with the plural suffix even when used with a singular meaning, but this is not what we have found in our data.

The use of *-pan* is not limited to native Tol vocabulary as evidenced by its use in the Spanish loans in (2), many of which are from the Bible translation (Wycliffe Bible Translators 2010).

(2)	*ángel-pan*	'angels'	*mózo-pan*	'workers'
	judío-pan	'Jews'	*enemígo-pan*	'enemies'
	fariséo-pan	'Pharisees'	*discípulo-pan*	'disciples'
	saducéo-pan	'Sadducees'	*proféta-pan*	'profets'
	militár-pan	'soldiers'	*sacerdóte-pan*	'priests'
	família-pan	'family members'		

This supports the notion that the use of *-pan* is semantically tied to animacy or prominence of the referent in a productive way rather than being lexically determined.

The suffix is also used for pluralizing possessed nouns as shown in (3). Adding *–pan* does not affect the stress pattern of the stem, but *–pan* often seems to carry its own stress.

(3)	*ha-chom-pan*	'their wives (of people)'	(HT-2-1>00:16:04)
	na-tham-pan	'my brothers'	(Mateo 20:21)
	he-pey-pan	'your brothers-in-law'	(Lucas 14:12)
	ho-mika-pan	'his friends'	(Mateo 5:24)
	hu-kukus-pan	'his daughters'	(Mateo 5:9)
	n-ta'a-pan / to'o-pan	'my sisters / his sisters'	(Mateo 12:50/ 13:56)
	n-kokoy-pan	'the thunder claps; my grandfathers; my forefathers'[5]	(HT-5-1>00:15:21)

Note that *-pan* can also be used to derive nouns. Thus from the adjective *pülükh* 'a lot; many' is derived a noun *pülükh-pan* 'multitude; family' which is usually possessed[6] as in (4) (All examples from the New Testament in Tol are from Wycliffe Bible Translators (2010)).

(4) *hü-pülükh-pan*
3.SG-many-PL
'his multitude; his brothers' (Mateo 1:2)

Likewise, the adjectives *'üsüs* 'good' and *malala* 'bad' can be pluralized with *–pan* as in (5).

(5) *hyawka* *wa* *malala-pan* *mpes*
dawn also bad-PL on
'it also dawns on the bad ones' (Mateo 5:45)

The main difference between the nominalized form with *pülükh*, which looks much like the other possesseable nouns, versus the other adjectives used with *-pan* is that the former is possessable and the latter seem not to be as far as we can observe in the available data.

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[4] We have not attested a singular form.
[5] *Kokoy* means 'sun', 'thunder clap', 'grandfather' and 'forefather'. In Tol cosmology natural phenomena associated with light, such as sun and thunder, are thought of as divine beings: "The First Nation lived with the *Tomams*: *Tata Dios*, Grandfather Thunder, *Noventa* [brother of Tata Dios], the Stars, the Sun, the Moon" (Chapman 1992: 104).
[6] *Pülükh* also forms part of a derived adverb *la pülükh* 'many times'.

It is also possible to pluralize some pronouns which are already plural. This is shown in (6).

(6) *nun-pan* *malala-pan*
2.PL-PL bad-PL
'you all who are evil' (Mateo 7:11)

However, this seems marginal and is only attested in our corpus with a few instances of the second person plural pronoun. A similar situation is discussed briefly below in the section on –*thakh*.

3.1.2 Plural prefix *ni-*[7]

A plural prefix *ni-* is only found with the two lexemes shown in (7). In focus constructions the plural prefix changes to *no-* and the focus suffix changes as well, as discussed below in section 4.3.

(7)

yom	'man'	*ni-yom*	'men'
keph	'woman'	*ne-keph*	'women'

While *ni-* as pluralizer is restricted to these two lexemes, the opposite is true for *-pan* which cannot be used here—thus **yom-pan* and **kep-pan* are ungrammatical.

Also, *yom* and *keph* are the only two nouns which can take focus suffixes and have human or divine referents. Otherwise focus suffixes are found exlusively on nouns with lower animacy referents (cf. the section below on focus suffixes.)

3.1.3 Plural marker *(wi)-thakh*

A plural suffix –*thakh* or particle *wi-thakh* is used to pluralize items of medium prominence such as children, large animals of cultural importance and stars; examples are shown in (8).[8]

(8) a.

siete-ya	*phul*	***withakh***	*mos*	*nt'a*	*tha-tha*
seven-DEF	star	PL	3.SG:hand	in	PST-LOC.sit:3.PL

'in his (right) hand he had seven stars' (Apocalipsis 1:16)

b.

gente	*ha-kuman*	*animal*	***withakh***	*hiph*	*mpes*
people	3.PL-lead:3.PL	animal	PL	2.SG	because

'people sacrifice animals for your sake' (Hebreos 10:5)

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[7] The /i/ indicates a front high [i] or front close-mid vowel [ɛ], the quality of which is determined by vowel harmony with the noun stem.

[8] While *withakh* seems to be a single unit today, historically it can probably be analyzed as *wi-thakh*, where *wi-* would have been a derivational prefix meaning 'posessing X feature', where 'X' stands for the feature expressed by the word to which *wi-* attaches. It is possible, then, that *withakh* literally means 'it is many', provided that *thakh*, which is synchronically not attested in isolated form, means 'many'. Supporting this is the pair *chikh* 'small':*chikh-thakh* 'children'.. Evidence to support this analysis of *wi-* can be found in such word pairs as *chokh* 'soft' (this word from Efesios 6:14):*wichokh* 'bird (sp.)', *c'il* 'hair':*wic'il* 'bee (sp.)'.

c. *nasa* *thü-'ünan* *vaka* ***withakh***
now PST-kill:1.SG cow PL
'now I have killed cows' (Mateo 22:4)

The borrowed lexeme *(h)animal*[9] is used to refer only to larger animals with importance for the Tolpan people e.g. cows and horses. This means that it does not apply to fish or bees even though these smaller animals are also important sources of food (cf. (Oltrogge 1977a)).

Note that, while *withakh* is not found with nouns with human adult referents, it can be used with *yom* 'man' in its meaning 'male child / son' as shown in (9).

(9) *ni-yom* *siete* *withak=cha* *yuph*
PL-man seven PL=IPFV 3.PL
'There were seven boys' (Hechos 19:14)

Withakh can also function as a plural pronoun in NPs that contain adjectives—an example is shown in (10).

(10) a. *khul* *'üsüs* *way* *ha-püntü*[10]*-ph* *kiliyü* *mo'ó*
fish good 3.SG:COP NONPST-LOC.place-3.PL basket in
'the fish that were good they gathered in baskets'

b. *malala withakh* *na'ah* *la* *c'i* *yuph*
bad PL over.there AUX 3.PL:throw 3.PL
'the bad ones they threw away' (Mateo 13:48)

In (10a) the P argument 'fish' is expressed explicity by a noun and therefore needs no plural marking, but in (10b), which is parallel to the previous sentence, the noun is left out and here *withakh* is used in its place to make explicit the plurality of the referent.

There is a single lexeme in which we find what looks like the second part of *withakh* used as a plural suffix, cf. (11).

(11) *chikh* 'child; small one'
chikh-thakh 'children; small ones'[11]

This deficient plural suffix can possibly be explained historically as a contraction of *tshikh* and *withakh*. The reason for the change to occur in this particular item would be a high frequency of its plural, which is in turn explained by the fact that Tol speakers traditionally have more than one child.

Another limited context where we find *-thakh* is on the pronoun *his* as in (12).

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[9] Vowel initial Spanish loans are variably subject to epenthetic [h].
[10] This verb is one of a small class of causatives derived from locative verbs not currently described explicitly in the literature that correspond to *sit, stand* and *lie*. In each case, a change of verb class and the infixation of [n] in the coda of the first syllable plus the addition of a stressed final syllable copied from the root vowel creates causative, in this case producing the meaning 'place something such that it is lying down'.
[11] *Chikh witakh* 'the small ones' (E-28-1>00:05:43) is also attested but only marginally.

(12) *woway* *his-thakh* *his-papay* *pahal* *c'I* *thi-'ina*
child 3.PL-PL 3.PL-father a.lot anger PAST-get.angry:3.SG
'the father of the girls became very angry' (HT-1-1>00:05:27)

3.2 Possession

Some nouns are obligatorily possessed, i.e. they are never found without possessive morphology. These include parts of a whole and kinship terms. Parts of a whole include parts of the human body, parts of animals, and of other things such as branches of trees. At least a few of these nouns with obligatory possession refer to non-physical relationships, for example, *-(h)ola* 'thought, feeling, memory', *-la* 'name' and *–tin* 'language'. The common metaphorical use of the possessed form *–has* 'heart' as a predicate meaning 'to want' suggests a possible historical derivation for some of these terms from body parts, but they are not attested with reference to physical body parts in existing texts.

Possession is expressed as bound morphology on the possessed noun indexing the possessor, either as a prefix or a proclitic. Free pronouns can sometimes be used in conjunction with bound morphology or on their own. The possessive marking paradigms are shown in Table 4.

Table 4: Possessive marking paradigms

	Bound		**Free**
	Prefixes	Proclitics	
1.SG	*m-, n-, na-, ne-, ni-, no-, nu-, nü-*[12]		*naph*
2.SG	*he-, hi-, -y-*		*hiph*
3.SG	*ha-, ho-, hu-, -w-, -o-, -ü-*		*huph*
1.PL	*ka-*	*khis*	*khuph*
2.PL	*nuho-*	*his*	*nun*
3.PL	*sya-*	*his*	*yuph*

There are three possible combinations of the bound and free possessive markers shown in Table 4; these three possibilities are exemplified in (13a-c) with the obligatorily possessed noun *tin* 'language'.

(13) a. ***n**-tin* *way* *velé* *muekh* *ke'am*
1.SG-language COP speak:1.SG MUEKH here
'I only speak in my language here' (HT-3-1>00:02:25)

[12] Note that much of this variation is parallel to the sorts of attested variation in vowel and consonant realization as discussed above in relation to orthographic challenges. It is thus somewhat unclear which, if any, of these forms represent morphosyntactic alternatives as opposed to simply a range of transcription practices across variable phonetic realizations.

b. ***naph*** ***n-****tin* *vele* *muekh* *po=kinam*
1.SG 1.SG-language speak:1.SG MUEKH EMPH=now
'I am speaking in my language right now' (HT-3-1>00:03:59)

c. ***naph*** *tin* *velé*
1.SG language speak:1.SG
'I speak in my language' (HT-4-1>00:05:10)

As is evident from the table there is quite a bit of variation, particularly in the singular prefixes, and it does not seem possible to establish strict rules conditioning this variation. However, there is a tendency for prefix vowels to exhibit harmony with the first vowel of noun stems, as illustrated in (14).

(14) a. *nu-'ulap'ah* 'my neck'
nü-'üsam 'my sister-in-law'
na-has 'my heart'

b. *hu-'ulap'ah* 'his neck'
hü-'üsam 'his sister-in-law'
hu-khul 'his fish'

There is also a rather strong tendency for 1st person singular NV- (with a vowel) to appear before a weak consonant such as /m/, /n/, /h/, /'/ whereas strong consonants such as plosives and affricates yield N- as illustrated in (15).

(15) a. *na-'as* 'my blood'
na-has 'my heart'
na-mas 'my hand'
na-wala 'my face'

b. *n-kelew* 'my nephew'
m-p'üy 'my skin'
n-t'alaph 'my sister'
n-ciwe 'my brain'

A similar, yet more limited tendency can be found with the 3rd person marker. This appears as a prefix before weak consonants, and as an infix with strong initial consonants[13]; this is illustrated in (16).

(16) a. *hü-'üsam* 'his sister-in-law'
ho-maph 'his aunt'
ho-way 'his son-in-law'

[13] For a different and more complex account for these alternations see Holt (1999, 34–36).

b.	*p-w-isam*	'his mother-in-law'	(*m-pisam* 'my mother-in-law')
	ch-ü-icha	'his corn field'	(*n-chicha* 'my corn field')
	polomay	'his machete'	(*m-polomay* 'my machete')
	hos	'his heart'	(*na-has* 'my heart')

Note that a third person singular infix, which would be realized as *-o-, -ü- or -w-,* is deleted when the first stem vowel is /o/ or /u/, with very few exceptions, as exemplified by *polomay* in (16-b). In other contexts *-o-* replaces the first vowel as in *hos* 'his heart' from *has* 'heart'.

The above description accounts for the broad and most frequently encountered situations. But in rare cases we find variation between possessive strategies with a single lexeme as illustrated in (17) and (18).

(17) a.

naph	*m-wa*	*nt'a*	*nin*	*the-pyala*
1.SG	1.SG-house	in	thus	PST-3.SG:happen

'this happened in my house' (HT-1-1>00:02:32)

b.

na-wá	*na*	*muekh*	*ke'am*	*ne*	*nin*
1.SG-house	NA	MUEKH	here	and	thus

'this is my house, and that is that' (HT-3-1>00:11:36)

c.

mpes	*naph*	*wa*	*nt'a*	*yawá*
because	1.SG	house	in	3.SG:come

'is that why he came to my house?' (HT-3-1>00:06:58)

(18)

a.	*m-papay*	'my father'	(Dennis and Dennis 1983:2)
b.	*na-papay*	'my father'	(Dennis and Fleming 1976:5)

The variation between (17b) and (17c) in fact constitutes variation among two speakers who are brother and sister. The variant in (18b) is only marginally attested.

3.3 Focus suffixes

Nouns with low prominence referents have the ability to take a focus suffix, which has three suppletive allomorphs, -(*s*V)*s*, -VN, -V*kh*, depending on the lexeme. Focus suffixes are always accompanied by shift of stress to the right, as illustrated in (19).

(19)

a.	*wá*	*wo-sís*	'house'
	'áwa	*'owú-s*	'fire'
	wáka	*woko-sás*	'cow'
b.	*síth*	*sith-ím*	'avocado'
	yóm	*yom-én*	'man'
	pé	*pé-n*	'stone'

c.	*khán*	*khon-íkh*	'bed'
	phúl	*phul-ákh*	'star'
	mác'	*mac'-íkh*	'pozol'

The shape of the focus suffix is conditioned by the shape of the stem; after a final vowel the suffix appears either as -C or -CVC while after a consonant it apears as -VC. As shown in (19), the stem vowel can change and seems to interact with the quality of the suffix vowel, but not in an obvious and systematic way.

Earlier researchers have analyzed this suffix as a case marker. Dennis and Fleming (1976) say that the suffix "marks syntactic relations which are not yet well understood" (our translation) while alluding to a non-S/A function which is not always marked. Similarly, Holt (1999) calls the suffix an "objective case marker" which is not always used. It does not take much investigation, however, to find evidence that this suffix does not express the argument role of the noun as both short and long noun forms are generally found in both S, A and P function. Some examples of suffixed nouns in S function are given in (20), while examples with P function are given in (21).

(20) a. *ka'ah ha'sa niná yom-en*
where LOC.sit:3.SG DEM man-FOC
'where is this man?' (Juan 7:11)

b. *phul-akh ka palá his n-tünkü-s chun mpe*
star-FOC IRR down 3.PL FUT-fall-3.PL sky from
'the stars will fall down from the sky' (Mateo 24:29)

c. *the-mey woka-sas pero la nühusü huph*
PST-go:3.SG cow-FOC but AUX find:3.SG 3.SG
'the cow ran away, but he found it' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 15)

(21) a. *ma=polel nyukuk=cha phul-akh*
NEG=be.able see:1.PL=IPFV star-FOC
'we couldn't see the stars' (Hechos 27:20)

b. *naph kyawaha le hay woka-sas*
1.SG be.gone:3.SG AUX do cow-FOC
'I am losing the cow' (field notes)

The suffix-carrying *yom-en* 'man' is never found in P function. Unsuffixed nouns are found in either S, A or P function. From this we can at least ascertain that indicating a non-S/A role cannot be the function of suffixed nouns.

Another interesting aspect of focus suffixes is the way they interact with plural marking in a few lexemes. As mentioned above, *yom* 'man' and *keph* 'woman' pluralize with the prefix *ne-*. Their suffixed focus forms in the singular are *yom-én* and *kep-án*, respectively. But focused plural forms are as shown in (22a), although some speakers prefer the variant shown in (22b).

(22) a. *no-yom-és* 'men' (Wycliffe Bible Translators 2010)
no-kepy-ás 'women' (ET-28-1>00:17:59, ET-30-1>00:10:41, HT-2-1>00:05:38)

b. *ma=ke* *thi-kil* *tha-wele-ph* *no-khep-an*
NEG=want PAST-come PAST-talk-3.PL PL-woman-FOC
'the women don't want to come and talk' (HT-2-1>00:05:35)

In the next section, on syntax, we will look more at focus suffixes along with their distribution and their function in discourse organization.

4 Syntax

4.1 The noun phrase

The noun phrase in Tol consists minimally of a pronoun or a noun which may be accompanied by no more than one modifier or one specifier as illustrated in the NP template in (23).

(23) NP template: (pro)noun modifier / specifier

Examples of this are given in (24).

(24) a. *ca'as* *malala*
spirit bad
'evil spirit' (HT-6-1>00:03:16)

b. *ne-keph* *mat'e-ya*
PL-woman two-DEF
'the two women' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 35)

Tol does not concatenate modifiers and specifiers into chains such as *the five big red cars*. Constructions that add two or more modifiers or specifiers to a referent must be expressed predicatively with two conjoined clauses as shown in (25).

(25) a. *ni-yom* *mat'e* *hümükh* *la* *nt'a* *hatha=cha*
PL-man two road AUX? at sit:3.PL=IPFV

yun *tuluk=cha* *yuph* *manas*
3.PL:eye NEG=IPFV 3.PL both
'two men were sitting at the side of the road, both were blind' (Mateo 20:30)

b. *the-mey* *na* *ni-yom* *mat'e* *khüil* *thil* *wa*
PST-pass:3.SG when PL-man two after PST:go:3.SG also

manas *yun* *tuluk=cha* *yuph*
both 3.PL:eye NEG=IPFV 3.PL
'when he passed, two men followed him, both were blind' (Mateo 9:27)

c. *mantha* *pethel* *chikh* *way* *te* *way*
mantha wasp small COP black COP
'the mantha wasp is small, it is black' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 20)

4.1.1 Adjectives

Adjectives in Tol need the copula verb *way* seen in (25c) in order to form clauses, i.e., they are not able to function as predicates on their own, *pace* the analysis in Dennis and Dennis (1983) where adjectives are claimed to be able to function as stative verbs in addition to their function as nominal modifiers.

Tol has borrowed the Spanish *más* 'more' for creating comparative constructions. Comparatives of the 'greater-than' type use the template in (26).

(26) N1 *mas* ADJ N2 *lal*

Examples of comparative constructions are shown in (27).

(27) a. *chun* *kokoy* *mas* *püné* *mümüy* *lal*
turkey male more large female with
'the male turkey is larger than the female' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 2)

b. *mas* *'in* *püné* *thamakhas*[14] *cüipe* *lal*
more 'IN large adolescent.male 3.SG:brother with
'the youngster is larger than his brother' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 20)

c. *tul* *mas* *chikh* *sipiph* *lal*
pigeon more small sipiph with
'the pigeon is smaller than the sipiph' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 39)

Comparatives of the 'equal-to' type are different, using the template in (28).

(28) N1 N2 *hin* (*wa*) *husta*

Examples are shown in (29).

(29) a. *pü'á* *chiyó* *hin* *husta*
puma dog like appear:3.SG
'the puma is like the dog' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 7)

[14] This may represent a suffixed form.

b. *walam a miste=cha hin huste=cha lokopyaya keph*
first A cat=IPFV like appear:3.SG=IPFV afterwards woman
'at first it was like a cat, afterwards like a woman' (HT-2-1>00:30:54)

Adjectives can also serve as proforms for NPs such as in (30).

(30) a. *phü 'ükh la tha-hay*
all good AUX PST-do:3.PL
'they did all the good (deeds)' (Mateo 27:55)

b. *chan malala ka nakh hin n-ola*
what bad IRR could.be like 1.SG-thought

mpes ma ke vele
because NEG want 3.SG:speak
'perhaps it's something bad, I think, because she doesn't want to speak' (HT-2-1>00:20:45)

As was discussed above in section 3.1 on the noun, number is not formally expressed for nominal entities of low animacy or promimence. A rather peculiar exception to this is in the adjectival meaning 'large' which may be expressed either with *püné*, which is used in all contexts both singular or plural, or with *noypan* 'large.PL' which is only used for plural referents that are either human beings or body parts of humans or animals, as illustrated in (31).

(31) a. *po'om ham püné tya'a huph*
po'om spike large have:3.SG 3.SG
'the *po'om* tree has large spikes' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 29)

b. *nol wa ni-yom? ni-yom noypan mat'é*
how.many also PL-man PL-man large.PL two
'how many men are there? there are two grown men' (ET-22-1>00:16:49)

c. *choc' noypan*
breast large.PL
'they had large breasts' (HT-2-1>00:30:58)

d. *c'asvoch peph noypan*
tayra[15] 3.SG:claw large.PL
'the claws of the parrot are large' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 26)

Interestingly, the body part criterion does not extend to part-of-whole such as the spikes of a tree, as shown in (31a), making the noun classification employed by *noypan* more restrictive than that of the focus noun suffixes, which apply to all nouns with inanimate referents, as discussed in section 3.1.

[15] A weasel-like mammal of Central America, in local Spanish *perico ligero*.

Note that NPs with *noypan* may be the only context where a modifier and a specifier can appear next to each other in a single NP, as in (31b), where *noypan* is succeeded by a numeral.

Historically *noypan* would seem to contain the plural suffix *-pan* but synchronically there is no evidence of a word *noy* meaning 'large'.[16]

4.1.2 Adverbs

An adjective or a verb can be modified by preposing an adverb. Commonly occurring adverbs include *po, chay*, *pahal* or *pasal* which can all be translated roughly as 'very'; examples are shown in (32).

(32) a. *chay* *üsüs* *muk-usus* *mo'o*
very good ladino-FOC with
'it is very good (to be) with the ladinos' (HT-5-1)

b. *pahal* *c'a'in* *the-pyala*
very get.angry PST-happen:3.PL
'they were very angry' (HT-1-1>00:06:04)

c. *pahal* *püne=cha?*
very large=IPFV
'was it very large?' (HT-7-1>00:02:19)

The adverb *pahal* can be used to modify *pülükh*, which in turn can be used as an adverb itself, and the same is true for *chay* 'very', as shown in (33a-b) below, both from the same text.

(33) a. *pahal* *pülükh wikh* *si* *naph* *the-vele* *naph*
very much laugh:2.SG 3.SG 1.SG PST-speak:1.SG 1.SG
'don't laugh (so) very much, I said' (HT-3-1>00:00:44)

b. *chay* *pülükh wi'i*
very much laugh:3.SG
'he laughs very much' (HT-3-1>00:02:41)

However, to judge from the available data *pahal* is more often used as a verbal modifier than as an adjectival modifier[17].

Finally, a different type of adverb *ükh* 'good' is used to qualify an action or state as agreeable or acceptable – examples are found in (34).

(34) a. *le* *mon* *ükh* *la* *velé-s*
AUX ask.for:1.SG well AUX speak-?[18]
'I ask permission to speak' (ET-14-1>00:00:30)

[16] Alternatively, it is possible that the element *noy* is comparable to the *no-* plural cited in (22) a. above and that the *pan* is a variant of püné 'big'.
[17] The historical source may be *pasal* which is a variant form, since /s/ is often pronounced as [h].
[18] This and similar forms consisting of *la* plus a modified verb root generally indicate purpose; while they have not yet been studied extensively, one possible interpretation that seems compatible with available data is that they may be nominalized verbs with focus suffix morphology.

b. *m-papay* *na-may* *mas* *ükh* *ha-vele-ph* *tol*
1.SG-father 1.SG-mother more good 3.PL-speak-3.PL Tol
'my father and my mother speak well in Tol' (ET-3-1>00:08:07)

4.1.3 Numerals

The modern Tol language has numerals from one through four, but the existence of higher numerals historically is known from various sources (Conzemius 1923; Von Hagen 1943: 94) and are also found reproduced in Holt (1999: 45). These higher numbers have been replaced by Spanish ones in the modern language.

The current numerals are displayed in table 5. The suffix *-ya* is a marker of definiteness. Numerals with *-ya* count referents which are regarded as definite, and those without count referents that are indefinite. A suffix *–nas* renders an inclusive meaning 'both, all three, all four'. The preposed particle *la*, which often occurs when the numeral precedes a verb, is used to count the number of times an action or event takes place, e.g. 'once, two times' etc. There are no ordinal numbers, but *mwalá* 'in front, at first' can be used to express 'the first one'. The numeral *phaní* 'one' can be used as an indefinite quantifier meaning 'a bit, a few'.

Table 5: Numbers

		Definite	Inclusive	Times	Ordinal
1	*phaní*	*phaní-ya*		*la phaní*	*mwalá*
2	*mat'e*	*mat'e-ya*	*ma-nas*	*la mat'e*	-
3	*kont'e*	*kont'e-ya*	*ko-nas*[19]	*la kont'e*	-
4	*yuluphana*	*yuluphana-ya*	*yulupha-nas*[20]	*la yuluphana*	-

4.2 The postpositional phrase

Most postpositions are primarily used in the expression of spatial relations, while a few of them are more commonly employed in the expression of such oblique arguments as instruments and causers. A postpositional phrase consists of an NP followed by a postposition.

A relative clause (35a), a proper name (35b-c) or an adjective (35d) can all serve as the object of a postposition as shown below.

(35) a. *poyom* *tü-nin* *nt'a=cha*
paca[21] PST-shoot:PST:2.SG in=IPFV

the-pala=cha *püna*
PST-happen:3.SG=IPFV long.ago
'what happened to you where you shot the paca ?' (HT-2-1>00:11:39)

b. *Pedro* *pü'ü* *nt'a* *ka* *nakh* *ma=sele*
P. live:3.SG in IRR could.be NEG=know:1.SG
'it could be where Pedro lives, I don't know' (HT-2-1>00:06:09)

[19] *Ko-nas* comes from Holt (1999: 45).
[20] *Yuluphanas* we have only found in Apocalipsis 19:4 (Wycliffe Bible Translators 2010).
[21] Herbivorous rodent.

c. *Jaime nt'a ke pü'üs=cha naph*
J. in want live:1.SG=IPFV 1.SG
'I wanted to live at Jaime's' (HT-2-1>00:17:04)

d. *n-kokoy has tula huph ko'müy mpes*
1.SG-grandfather REFL be.tired:3.SG 3.SG old because
'my grandfather is tired because [he is] old' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 3)

An overview of the most common postpositions is given in Table 6.

Table 6: Postpositions

'alá	'under'	*mpe(s)*[22]	'because of' 'in order to' 'with' (instrument) 'from'
hay	'on top of'	*napé*	'from'
kasá	'on top of'	*nt'a*	'to, in, on'
khüil	'after'	*phyapha('a)*	'behind'
khüipha'á[23]	'behind'	*po'o*	'in (temporal) to'
lal	'with'	*t'asiyú*	'around'
mo'ó	'in(side); on'		

In what follows we will look closer at the most commonly found postpositions with regards to distributions and functions.

4.2.1 *lal* 'with'

The prototypical spatial function of *lal* is comitative as in (36).

(36) a. *m-papay lal pü'üs naph*
1.SG-father with live:1.SG 1.SG
'I live with my father' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 30)

b. *loktol lal wa chan his-tin vele-n?*
doctor with TOP what 3.PL-language speak-2.SG
'what language do you speak with the doctor?' (ET-8-1>00:06:15)

c. *phaní way khis mat'e-ya naph lal*
one COP 1.PL two-DEF 1.SG with
'there is one, with me we're two' (ET-15-1>00:14:44)

Examples of non-spatial functions of *lal* are given in (37). In these examples the postposition is used to introduce a non-core argument into the clause.

[22] It is not entirely clear whether *mpe(s)* and *napé* are distinct postpositions.
[23] There is some reason to believe that *pha'a* acts as a separate morpheme based on several forms in this table and a few additional forms. It does not seem to be attested as a free morpheme in the available data, though.

(37) a. *nin* *vele=cha* *naph* *lal*
DEM speak:3.SG=IPFV 1.SG with
'that is what he used to say to me' (HT-2-1>00:31:50)

b. *kastilla* *tulukh* *naph* *lal*
bee.sp. NEG 1.SG with
'it was not *castilla* as far as I could tell' (HT-7-1>00:06:21)

c. *ükh* *hyas* *Jesus* *lal* *ka* *n-velé*
good want:2.SG J. with IRR FUT-speak:1.SG
'let us thank Jesus, I will say' (HT-8-1>00:07:41)

4.2.2 *nt'a* 'to, in, on'

The postposition *nt'a* marks two types of spatial relations; on the one hand it serves to express movement towards a location, as exemplified in (38a). On the other hand it expresses containment or vertical contact, as shown in (38b-c).

(38) a. *pueblo* ***nt'a*** *the-mey*
village to PST-go:3.SG
'he went to the village' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 1)

b. *püste* *kalaca* *pülükh* *lyawung* *na-wá* ***nt'a***
night cockroach many go:3.PL 1.SG-house in
'at night there are many cockroaches in my house' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 1)

c. *paká* ***nt'a*** *kampa way* *thi-nyukh* *naph*
hill on far COP PST-see:1.SG 1.SG
'from on top of the hill I saw far away' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 27)

As far as the available data show, *nt'a* does not include any non-spatial relations in its possible meanings.

4.2.3 *mo'o* 'in(side); on'

In the examples below *mo'o* is used in different senses including containment as in (39a), loose containment as in (39b) and vertical contact as in (39c).

(39) a. *muc'i* *wa* ***mo'o*** *pü'ü*
mouse house in live:3.SG
'the mouse is living inside the house' (HT-2-1>00:09:26)

b. *kisyas* ***mo'o*** *tho-'os* *mo* *th-ive*
wilderness in PST-LOC.sit:1.SG MO PST-rain
'I was standing[24] in the wilderness when it was raining' (HT-1-1>00:00:46)

[24] In its locative use, this verb implies temporary or transitory location, rather than a sitting posture.

c. *carreta-s* *nina* *ha'sa* ***mo'o*** *te-ket=cha*
wheelbarrow-FOC DEM LOC.sit:3.SG on PST-bring:1.SG=IPFV
'I brought it on that wheelbarrow' (HT-7-1>00:03:45)

This postposition is always included in place names when mentioned in a non-locative sense; in the corpus this usually happens as the answer to the question *chan lo ke'a* 'what is the name of this place?' – examples of answers to that question are shown in (40).

(40) a. *Linkon* ***mo'o*** *kinam*
Rincon on here
'(it is called) El Rincón here' (ET-28-1>00:01:13)

b. *Hok'* *C'utus* ***mo'o***
mountain flower on
'(it is called) Montaña de la Flor' (ET-20-1>00:05:49)

Mo'o can also be used in an abstract sense referring to time rather than space, as shown in (41).

(41) a. *kuchay* *Maria-s* *ükh* *ükh* *th-a'sa* *mo'o* *p'in*
still M.-FOC? good good PST-LOC.sit:3.SG in just
'that was when Maria was still in good health' (HT-6-1>00:11:39)

b. *ükh* *wa* *lyol=cha* *niná* *mo'o*
good also smoke:2.SG=IPFV DEM in
'you used to smoke back then' (HT-6-1>00:15:11)

c. *chikh* *way* *mo'o* *m-wala* *tho-wele-ph*
small COP in 1.SG-face PST-speak-3.PL
'they told me when I was a child' (HT-6-1>00:25:38)

4.2.4 *mpes* 'CAUSE, PURPOSE, INSTRUMENT'

The postposition *mpes* is perhaps the most abstract of all, encoding as it does the allocation of responsability or causation whether it be with or without intent – this is exemplified in (42).

(42) a. *nin* ***mpes*** *ma=polel* *the-lya*
DEM because NEG=be.able PST-eat:1.SG
'that is why I couldn't eat' (HT-1-1>00:00:32)

b. *aguacate* ***mpes*** *la* *phalan* *way* *hin*
avocado because AUX fight:3.PL COP thus
'they were fighting over an avocado, it seems' (HT-2-1>00:20:14)

c. *pülül* ***mpes*** *lyawung* *phakh*
clothes because go:3.PL sound:3.SG
'it sounds like they are going (in order to wash) clothes' (HT-3-1>00:07:44)

d. *mas* *mpes* *m-vu?* *myas* *mpes*
1.SG:hand because FUT-measure:1.SG 2.SG:hand because
'I measure with my hand? with you hand' (HT-4-1>00:00:43)

Some uses can perhaps be construed as spatial as in (43), where a ship comes into contact with large rocks, something which is encoded using *mpes*.

(43) *yola=cha* *barco* *pe* *püné* *mpes* *ka* *n=chaka-s*
think:3.PL=IPFV ship rock large because IRR FUT-hit-3.SG
'they thought that the ship would hit large rocks' (Hechos 27:29)

However, an instrumental reading of *mpes* in (43) is also possible.

In addition to its function as a postposition, *mpes* has been reanalyzed as a subordinating conjunction located at the beginning of the subordiante clause. Examples of this are shown in (44).

(44) a. *ma=selé* *t'i'i* *naph* *kem*
NEG=1.SG:know cut 1.SG this
'I don't know how to cut this' (HT-4-1>00:04:28)

b. ***mpes*** *ke* *hin* *'yüsü-cha*
therefore want 2.SG 3.PL:improve-IRR
'that is why you want to learn' (HT-4-1>00:04:31)

We can imagine that *mpes* used to be located at the right edge of clauses like the one in (44a) which would be a subordinate clause meaning 'since I don't know how to cut'. It was then reanalyzed placing *mpes* at the left edge of the main clause (44b) which then turned into a left headed subordinate clause headed by the subordinator, something atypical for Tol. The main support for the above analysis is the fact that *mpes* is now prosodically at the left edge in clauses like (44b) and in this particular instance the fact that (44a) and (44b) were uttered by two different people in a dialogue lends extra support to the analysis of where one clause ends and the other begins.

When the object of a postposition is a pronoun, and a full NP representing the P argument also occurs, the latter must come after the verb as in (45).

(45) *chan* *his* *tin* *wa* ***his*** ***lal***
what 2/3..PL language also 3.PL with

ha-vele-ph *hi-chuyuph* *escuela* *mo'ó?*
3.PL-speak-3.PL 2.SG-child school in
'what language do they speak with your children at school?' (ET-21-1>00:08:57)

This state of affairs is an exception to the general SOV constituent order in Tol.

4.3 Main clause

The basic constituent order of a main clause is SOV and the identification of the core arguments of the clause is aided by a combination of constituent order, verb morphology – both linear (concatenative) and non-linear (infixation, ablaut and stress shift) – as well as by phonologically autonomous pronouns. All verbs are marked for person and number of the S/A argument but widespread homonymy in the paradigms of most verb classes necessitates the frequent use of pronouns for disambiguation. P arguments may be represented by a pronoun, a noun or both depending on information structure, emphasis and focus. The examples in (46) illustrate these observations.

(46) a. *po* *kuph* *malana* *thi-'i'na-n* *la* *la-s*
EMPH 1.PL pig PST-kill-1.PL AUX eat-?
'we killed a pig in order to eat' (HT-1-1>00:00:20)

b. *ka'ah* *wa* *si* *nukh*
where also 3.SG see:2.SG
'where did you find it (the bee hive)?' (HT-7-1>00:00:12)

c. *m-papay* *'iyó* *the-hyokh-a* *ham* *mpes*
1.SG-father pine PST-split-3.SG axe with
'my father split the pine log with the axe' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 5)

In (46a) the A argument pronoun *kuph* is necessary because of ambiguity between 1.SG, 2.SG, 3.SG and 1.PL in this particular context. As the paradigm in (47) shows, there is complete homophony between 1.SG and 2.SG, and the presence of the nasal variant of the first person plural marker and the low perceptual salience of the glottal stop in the context of another glottal stop (both are generally realized as nonmodal phonation on adjacent vowels), the 1.PL form becomes nearly homophonous as well. Presumably this high degree of homophony or near homophony across many instances of the verbal paradigm are the motivation for the frequent use of independent pronouns throughout our data.

(47)

malana	*thi-'inan*	'I killed the pig'
malana	*thi-'inan*	'you killed the pig'
malana	*thi-'i'na*	'(s)he killed the pig'
malana	*thi-'i'na-kh/n*	'we killed the pig'
malana	*thü-'ü'na*	'you all killed the pig'
malana	*thü-'ünan*	'they killed the pig'

In (46b) there is homonymy between 1.SG and 2.SG but no pronoun is necessary because the intended meaning is inferrable from the context (the default interpretation would not be 'where did I find it?' when uttered in the presence of somebody else). As for P argument marking, it is true for all of the examples in (46) that when a P argument NP is present, no pronoun is necessary. It is possible, however, to include a P argument pronoun alongside a full NP as in (48).

(48) *hu-kukus* *hus*[25] *thi-nyuk-a* *khan* *kasá* *pü'ü=cha*
3.SG-daughter 3.SG.O PST-see-3.SG bed in lying=IPFV
'she saw her daugter lying in the bed' (Marcos 7:30)

This is mainly done for disambiguation when both A and P arguments are in the third person singular.

4.3.1 Interrogative

4.3.1.1 Polar questions

In order to form polar questions the interrogative particle *nku* is attached to the left edge of the clause as shown in (49).

(49) a. *nku* *wa* *phe'a* *nt'a* *t-hay* *chi'i* *la* *the-hay=cha?*
Q also outside to PST-go:2.SG say? AUX PST-do=IPFV
'did you ever go and work outside (the village)?' (ET-4-1>00:13:08)

b. *nku* *püs* *way* *la* *vele-s?*
Q long.time COP AUX speak-?
'can I speak for a long time?' (HT-6-1>00:01:10)

c. *nku* *pahal* *kosto* *way* *le* *hay* *niná?*
Q very difficult COP AUX do that
'is it very difficult to make that?' (HT-4-1>00:08:01)

The observation that the interrogative marker is always clause-initial counters Holt (1999: 54), who says that it immediately follows the topic of the sentence. Elsewhere Holt says that "There is little discernible about topic/focus" (1999, 49); see section 1.5 below for a discussion of information structure in Tol.

In some contexts it is possible to ask polar questions without usin the interrogative marker, as shown in (50).

(50) a. *mas* *mpes* *n-vú?*
1.SG:hand because FUT-measure:1.SG
'do I measure with my hand?' (HT-4-1>00:00:43)

b. *kina* *n-t'ü?*
now FUT-cut:1.SG
'should I cut now?' (HT-4-1>00:00:58)

c. *ne* *ke'a* *mwala* *n-tü?*
and here first FUT-cut:1.SG
'and I cut here first?' (HT-4-1>00:02:36)

[25] This is one of several series of preverbal object markers; verbs tend to appear with only one of the series, and there is some indication that different object pronouns may correspond to different cases, but no thorough study of the matter has settled the issue so far, in part because a number of largely opaque alternations, possibly related to prosodic structure, lead to a significant amount of homophony across the sets in most of the available data.

The above clauses rely on intonation in order to be identified as questions, all being pronounced with a rising intonation from beginning to end, but they also rely to a large extent on the context in which they appear. The clauses in (50) were uttered in a teacher-student situation and the student asks an array of questions about the task at hand.

4.3.1.2 Content questions

When forming content questions one of the interrogative pronouns in (51) must be used.

(51)

chan	'what?'
chanmpes	'why?'
ka'ah	'where?'
phakh	'who?'
'ona	'when?'
'oyn	'how?'
nol	'howmany?'

Question words appear at the left edge of the clause regardless of which part of it is questioned, as shown in (52).

(52) a.

phakh	*mas*	*ükh*	*ha-vele-ph*	*ke'a?*
who	COMP	good	1.PL-speak-1.PL	here

'who speaks best here?' (ET-9-1>00:09:51)

b.

nol	*wa*	*poteké*	*ke'a*	*wo-sis*	*mo'ó?*
how.many	also	live:2.PL	here	house-FOC	in

'how many do you live here in the house?' (ET-14-1>00:18:09)

c.

chan	*thi-nyukh?*
what	PST-see:2.SG

'what did you see?' (HT-2-1>00:13:48)

d.

chan	*la*	*the-hay=cha?*
what	AUX	PST-do=IPFV

'what did you do?'

kaphé	*thi-vüla=cha*
coffee	PST-harvest=IPFV

'I was harvesting coffee' (ET-4-1>00:13:16)

In (52a-b) the S argument is questioned, in (52c-d) it is the P argument.

When asking an interlocutor to choose between a finite number of options, the NP that is questioned comes right after the question word, as in (53).

(53) a. *chan* *histin* *wa* *his* *lal*
what language also 3.PL with

ha-vele-ph *hi-chuyuph* *escuela* *mo'ó?*
3.PL-speak-3.PL 2.SG-child school in
'what language do they speak with your children at school?' (ET-21-1>00:08:57)

b. *nol* *kiliyú* *ti-pit'a* *la* *thü-hí*
how.many basket PST-fill AUX PST-do:2.SG

pan *chikh-thakh* *mpes?*
bread small-PL with
'how many baskets did you fill with pieces of bread?' (Marcos 8:19)

The Tol language has no word for 'year' and when asking about what year something happened, the question word *chan* 'what' is used as the object of the temporal postposition *po'o* 'in' as in *chan po'o tha-manün*? 'what year were you born?'.

4.4 Subordinate clauses

4.4.1 Adverbial clause

The most frequent adverbial subordinator in Tol is *na* 'when', which appears at the end of the subordinate clause, as shown in (54).

(54) a. *"ne* *chan* *ki?"* *kus* *mas* *hus* *thi-nyuka* ***na***
and what DEM 3.SG say:3.SG 3.SG PST-see:3.SG when
'"and what is this?" he'll say when he sees it' (HT-2-1>00:09:32)

b. *'yoc'* ***na*** *'oyn* *le* *hay?*
extract:2.SG when how AUX do:2.SG
'when you extract (honey), how do you do it?' (HT-7-1>00:04:24)

c. *the-hyawka* ***na*** *ya* *th-um* *the-ket=cha*
PST-dawn when YA PST-go:1.SG PST-bring:1.SG=IPFV
'when the sun came up I went to get it' (HT-7-1>00:03:41)

As the examples show, adverbial subordinate clauses can be located on either side of the main clause, but always with the subordinator at the right edge of the subordinate clause.

4.4.2 Conditional clause

Conditional sentences are made up of a conditional subordinate clause or protesis, followed by its main clause, the apodosis, as shown in (55).

(55) a. *ma=kuy* *ma=ke* *velé*
NEG=come:2.SG NEG=want speak:3.SG
'if you hadn't come, he wouldn't have wanted to speak' (HT-2-1>00:14:50)

b. *n-ka* *pa'in* *po* *ka* *phaham=cha*
FUT-IRR wash:2.SG EMPH IRR dry:3.SG=IPFV
'if you had washed, it would have dried' (HT-3-1>00:07:30)

c. *nyas* *t'in* *ka* *malala nakh*
IRR cut:2.SG IRR bad could.be
'if you cut yourself, it is bad' (HT-4-1>00:07:43)

d. *mwen* *t'um* *way* *thi'la* *po'o* *ma=ka* *las*
3.SG:neck joint COP grab:2.SG on NEG=IRR eat:FUT
'if you grab it by the neck, it won't bite' (HT-6-1>00:23:03)

Note that there is no overt subordinator or conditional marker, leaving it purely to the semantics and pragmatics to distinguish conditional constructions from conjoined main clauses.

4.4.3 Complement clause

A subordinate clause can act as complement of a main clause, often as a P argument, as illustrated in (56).

(56) a. *yóla=cha* *barco* *pe* *püné* *mpes* *ka* *n-chaka-s*
think:3.PL=IPFV ship stone large because IRR FUT-hit-3.SG
'they thought that the ship would hit large rocks' (Hechos 27:29)

b. *huph* *the-vele* *ke'a* *San* *Juan* *mo'ó*
3.PL PST-speak:3.SG here S. J. in
'he said (that he was born) here in San Juan' (ET-18-1>00:04:17)

c. *ma=selé* *pi'c'e* *p'iya* *ükh* *nakh*
NEG=know:3.SG make.basket just good maybe

si'i=cha *nowaha'am*
say=IPFV last.time
'last time he said that it was best with someone who doesn't know how to make baskets' (HT-6-1>00:00:08)

There is no overt subordinator and the complement clause can also appear on the left side of the main clause for emphasis, as shown by the difference between (56a-b) on the one hand and (56-c) on the other.

4.4.4 Relative clause

Relative clauses appear after their head noun as shown in (57a-b), but the head noun can also be left unexpressed as in (57c-d).

(57) a. *phakh choyo-s p'in no'ó mpe [hak'] ha'a'?*
who dog-FOC just there because 3.SG:come INTERR.TOP
'to whom might that dog that is coming belong?' (HT-8-1>00:02:44)

b. *chan sele-n hiph nepenowá tolpan*
what think:2.SG 2.SG some Tol

[ma=ha-vele-ph c'ekh?]
NEG=3.PL-speak-3.PL Spanish
'what do you think of the Tol who don't speak Spanish? (ET-14-1>00:13:46)

c. [*maysa vele] ma=nin 'yüsa naph*
stuttering speak:3.PL NEG=DEM understand:1.SG 1.SG
'I don't understand (people) who stutter' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 20)

d. *pülükh ka nakh [tol ha-vele-ph]*
many IRR could.be Tol 3.PL-speak-3.PL
'they might be many, those who speak tol' (ET-3-1>00:05:05)

Again, there is no overt relativizer, and our analysis rests entirely on the reading.

4.5 Negation

Main clauses as well as subordinate clauses which contain a verbal predicate are negated by adding the proclitic *ma*= to the left edge of the negated clause, as shown in (58).

(58) a. *ma=nola=cha nin*
NEG=think:1.SG=IPFV that
'I didn't worry about it' (HT-6-1>00:07:54)

b. *ma=ké thi-khil tha-vele-ph no-khep-an*
NEG=want PST-come PST-speak-3.pl PL-woman-FOC
'the women didn't want to come and chat' (HT-2-1>00:05:35)

c. *ma=wa pwe n-küwüc'ü-n*
NEG=TOP be.able FUT-scrape.2.SG
'you can't scrape' (HT-4-1>00:12:53)

The negator *ma*= attaches to whatever element happens to come first in the clause as evidenced by (58), where it attaches to verbs (58a-b) as well as the topicalizer *wa* as in (58c).

Adjectives are negated with the negative copula *tulukh*, the negative counterpart of the copula *way*; compare (59-a) and (59-b).

(59) a. *pülül pül napnap' way huph*
clothes old soft COP 3.SG
'the old fabric is soft' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 23)

b. *azulón syasa napnap' tulukh*
hoe new soft NEG
'the new hoe is not soft' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 1)

Nominal predicates are also negated with *tulukh*, as shown in (60).

(60) a. *gente tulukh a' cham yuluphana hun huste*
human NEG A' foot four like seem
'he is not a human being, he has four feet, it seems' (HT-6-1>00:09:22)

b. *h-un tulukh=cha yom-en*
3.SG-eye NEG=IPFV man-FOC
'the man was blind' (lit. his eyes were not) (Mateo 12:22)

c. zapato *tulukh*
shoe NEG
'he has no shoes' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 27)

d. *na-tham tulukh*
1.SG-son NEG
'he is not my son' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 39)

In certain contexts *tulukh* can also be used to negate a verbal predicate as in (61).[26]

(61) *c'ekh la vele-s tulukh si naph lal*
Spanish AUX speak-? NEG say 1.SG with

tol se la vele-s
tol 3.SG AUX speak-?
'you should not speak Spanish, he said to me, you should only speak Tol' (HT-2-1>00:19:02)

This would seem to be limited to participial-like clauses. The case of (61) could be paraphrased along the lines of '(your) speaking of Spanish should not be'.

The language lacks a negative interjection that can be the sole answer to a polar question. However, there is a demonstrative pronoun *nin* '(it is) thus' which is also used affirmatively to mean 'yes', and *tulukh* is used to negate the positive interjection, producing *nin tulukh* 'no; it is not the case' (HT-2-1>00:03:15).

4.6 Information structure

In our discussion of information structure in Tol we will only need a very general definition of focus and topic, such as the one offered by Lambrecht:

[26] Alternatively, this construction for expressing purpose (*la* + verb + suffix) might be interpreted as a nominalization, as suggested in footnote 14 above.

> The focus is that portion of a proposition which cannot be taken for granted at the time of speech. It is the UNPREDICTABLE or pragmatically NON-RECOVERABLE element in an utterance. (Lambrecht 1994: 207)

Topic, by implication, can be defined as the part of an utterance which is predictable or pragmatically recoverable. In what follows we will look at the morpho-syntactic means employed in Tol for marking focus and topic (continuity).

4.6.1 Focus

4.6.1.1 Noun suffixes

As was discussed in section 4.6.1.1 on noun suffixes above, a great number of nouns take a suffix, *-(sV)s, -(V)kh* or *-(V)N*, the shape of which is lexically determined. In previous literature it was analyzed as a non-S/A argument case marker, but as we argued above, this analysis does not stand up to close scrutiny. Here we will give evidence that leads us to analyze the noun suffix as a marker of information prominence, or focus. Consider the examples in (62).

(62) a. A: *lekh* *heya*
fear be.afraid:3.SG
'it is afraid'

B: *huh?*
'huh?'

A: *lekh* *heya* *ka* *nakh* *woko-sas*
fear be.afraid:3.SG IRR maybe cow-FOC
'maybe it is afraid, the bull' (HT-2-1>00:00:23)

b. *huph* *hus* *thi-nyuka* *yom* *hun* *tulukh*
3.SG 3.SG PST-see:3.SG man 3.SG:eye NEG
'he saw a man who couldn't see' (Juan 9:1)

c. *the-mya'na* *pepes* *hun* *tulukh=cha* *yom-en*
PST-be.born:3.SG since 3.SG:eye NEG=IPFV man-FOC
'since he was born he has been blind, the man' (Juan 9:3)

In (62a) two men, A and B, are sitting watching a group of men trying to catch some bulls that have escaped them. At first B does not hear what A is saying causing A to repeat his comment but now making explicit the S argument with a focused NP *woko-sas* 'the bull'. The other examples (62b) and (62c) belong to one and the same Bible verse describing how Jesus and his disciples encounter a blind man. In (62b) the relative clause *yom hun tuluhk* 'a man who is blind' simply describes an attribute of the man, who in the main clause in (62b) is represented with the pronoun *hus*. In (62c), on the other hand, we find a main clause *hun tulukh=cha* 'he had been blind' followed by the focused NP *yom-en* 'the man'.

Supporting our focus analysis is the fact that suffixed nouns never appear in canonical constituent order; rather, NPs headed by a suffixed noun is moved to postverbal focus position – this is discussed in the next section.

4.6.1.2 NP movement

We recall that Tol is a head-final language with canonical SOV constituent order. However, S or O arguments may be moved to postverbal position for focus, as we have already seen in the examples in the section above. Example (63) further illustrates that an NP can occur in that position even without containing a suffixed noun.

(63) a. A: *cha'as malala la hüsü sekh 'e?*
spirit bad AUX encounter nothing 'E
'did you never encounter any evil spirits?'

B: *huh?*
'huh?'

A: *la hüsü sekh ca'as malala?*
AUX encounter nothing spirit bad
'did you ever encounter them, evil spirits?' (HT-6-1>00:03:16)

b. *nin vele m-papay naph lal püna*
thus say:3.SG 1.SG-father 1.SG with long.ago
'that is what he said to me, my father, long ago' (HT-2-1>00:31:08)

Note that in (63b) *m-papay* is moved to postverbal position for focus, but the oblique argument 'to me' has not been moved as postpositional phrases usually appear in this position.

4.6.2 Topic continuity

Topic NPs in Tol are not marked morpho-syntactically as topics, but there are clausal means of marking the continuation of an already present topic as we will see below.

4.6.2.1 Topic continuity: *wa*

In its adverbial use, the particle *wa* can be translated as 'also' and is used to refer back to an antecedent either in the discourse or in the shared knowledge of the interlocutors. Exampes are shown in (64).

(64) a. *kelel hum **wa** naph pueblo nt'a*
want go:1.SG also 1.SG village to
'I want to go the village as well' (Dennis and Dennis 1983: 50)

b. *lal the-mey **wa** chikh-is chikh ha-may lal **wa***
with PST-go also child-FOC child 3.SG-mother with also
'he left with the child, (and) with the child's mother as well' (Mateo 2:21)

The negative form of the construction is *ma wa* 'also not' as in (65).

(65) a. A: *ne* *chan* *wa* *lo* *c'ekh* *ke'a?*
CONJ what also 3.SG:name Spanish here
'what is (this place) called here in Spanish?

B: *ma=sele*
NEG=know:1.SG
'I don't know'

A: *tol* ***ma=wa*** *selé* *chan* *lo?*
Tol NEG=also know:1.SG what 3.SG:name
'in Tol you don't know either?' (ET-6-1:00:01:11)

b. *chan* *po'o* *tha-manün* ***ma=wa*** *selé-n?*
what in PST-be.born:1.SG NEG=also know:2.SG
'where he was born you don't know either?' (ET-27-1:00:03:05)

And *p'a wa* 'another' as in (66).

(66) *ke'am* ***p'a*** ***wa*** *m-wun* *n-t-'ün*
now other also FUT-measure:2.SG FUT-IMPER-cut
'now measure another one and cut (it)' (HT-4-1:00:05:00)

But *wa* occurs in many contexts where the added meaning is not adverbial. This is the case in (67) which is the beginning of an interview conducted between two members of the same community. Although the interviewee knows the interviewer, he does not in advance know the questions he is going to ask him. We do not find *wa* in utterances introducing a novel topic which is not shared by interlocutors.

(67) A: *chan* *lo* *ke'á?*
what 3.SG:name here
'what is the name of (this place) here?'

B: *San* *Juan* *lo* *ke'á*
S. J. 3.SG:name here
'(this place) here is called San Juan'

A: *ne* *tol?*
CONJ Tol
'and in Tol?'

B: *Hok'* *Mo'ó*
mountain on
'On the Mountain'

A: *ne* *ka'áh* ***wa*** *tha-manün-cha*
CONJ where also PST-be.born-IPFV
'and where were you born?'

B: *Laguna* *Seca* *po'o* *tha-manün* *naph* *mpe*
L. S. in PST-be.born:1.SG 1.SG from
'I was born in Laguna Seca'

A: *chan* *año* *po'o?*
what year in
'in what year?'

B: *1987* *ka* *nakh*
1987 IRR exist:doubt
'1987 perhaps'

A: *ne* *chan* ***wa*** *lo* *ke'á* *c'ekh?*
CONJ what also 3.SG:name here Spanish
'and what is the name of (this place) here in Spanish?'

B: aquí... San Juan
here... S. J.
'here ... San Juan'

A: *ne* *tol* *ha'a?*
CONJ Tol INTERR.TOP
'and in Tol?'

B: *Hok'* *Mo'ó*
mountain on
'On the Mountain'

A: *ne* *chan* ***wa*** *lya* *hiph?*
CONJ what also 2.SG:name 2.SG
'and what is your name?'

It appears from (67) that *wa* is not used with the meaning 'also' to refer to an antecedent as in its adverbial use. Rather, *wa* introduces an additional question within the same line of questioning. Another use of *wa* as topic continuity marker is in (68). The context in (68) is less structured than the series of interview questions in (67).

(68) a. *'oyn* *hyas* *wa*
what 2.SG:want also
'what's up with you?' (HT-3-1:00:02:36)

b. *ma=thi-wí'i* *wa* *Maria* *velé-kh*
NEG=IMP-laugh also M. speak-1.PL
'don't laugh Maria, let's chat' (HT-3-1:00:03:09)

In (68) a group of family members are sitting, working and playing outside of their house. During this recording, which goes on for hours, neighbors stop and talk to the people outside the house as they come and go. In (68b) a young girl, Maria, a friend of the speaker, stops by and just stands around watching – this then elicits the remarks in (68a-b). What appears to be happening is that in the discoursive context (68a) is a continuation, even though it is the first utterance directed at Maria, a new participant, and this triggers the use of *wa*. Uttering (68a) without *wa* would be equally grammatical, but *wa* builds a bridge to the discourse that preceeded it. Example (68b) comes shortly after and has a similar function.

4.6.2.2 Interrogative topic continuity: *ha'a*

When a topic has been established in a discourse context, it is possible only to refer back to it using personal pronouns. In a similar way, when asking the same question, or a question which is known to the interlocutors without the need for explicit statement, the question particle or word can be elided and replaced by the interrogative topic continuity marker *ha'a* – this is illustrated in (69). (Example (69a) is a repetition of a part of (67)).

(69) a. A: *ne* *chan* *wa* *lo* *ke'á* *c'ekh?*
CONJ what also 3.SG:name here Spanish
'and what is the name of (this place) here in Spanish?'

B: *aquí...* San Juan
here... S. J.
'here ... San Juan'

A: *ne* *tol* ***ha'a****?*
CONJ Tol INTERR.TOP
'and in Tol?'

b. *ne* *lokopyáya* ***ha'a****?*
CONJ afterwards INTERR.TOP
'and what happened afterwards?'
'and what should I do afterwards?'

c. *ne* *kina* ***ha'a****?*
CONJ now INTERR.TOP
'and now what?'

In (69a) *ha'a* functions elliptically to avoid repeating the question. Example (69b) is used in two different context in our data, hence the two different translations, but both with the same function of soliciting a continuation of a line of information – a similar function is illustrated in (69c). Note that *ha'a* always appears at the right edge of an utterance and as such might be analyzed as a sentential enclitic.

4.7 TAM clitics

There are various morpho-syntactically bound markers of tense, aspect and mood in Tol. Some of them can be considered affixes and attach to the verb while others must be considered clitics and attach to various different hosts within different domains. Below we will look at three different clitics in terms of their distribution and function.

4.7.1 Irrealis *ka=*

The proclitic *ka=* indicates that an action or state has not been realised at the time of speech. Examples are found in (70).

(70) a. *chay* *ka=püs* *ka=thi'li-m* *niná* *phay*
very IRR=long.time IRR=catch-3.PL DEM people
'they'll take a good while to catch them, those people' (HT-2-1>00:00:12)

b. *kina* *kasá* *way* *ka=n-tün*
DEM in COP IRR=FUT-cut:2.SG
'this is where you are going to cut' (HT-4-1>00:00:38)

c. *ka=n-wu* *n-t'ün*
IRR=FUT-measure:2.SG FUT-cut:2.SG
'(you will) measure and cut!' (HT-4-1>00:01:38)

d. *hay* *ka=üsüs* *nakh=cha*
HEY IRR=good could.be=IPFV
'how good that would be!' (HT-5-1>00:12:45)

As in (70-b-c) the irrealis proclitic often co-occurs with the future prefix *n-*, although both can appear on their own.

4.7.2 Pluractional *=pan*

In section 3.1 above we saw the suffx *-pan* used for pluralizing nouns denoting human and other prominent entities. There is a homophonous enclitic *=pan*, which is used to indicate pluractionality (verbal number) as shown in (71).

(71) a. *p'iyom la* *m-palam=pan* *leké*
paca AUX FUT-look.for=PLUR go:FUT:3.SG
'we will go looking for *paca*' (HT-5-1>00:04:33)

b. *hasea* *la* *hay=pan* *ka*
clean AUX do:3.PL=PLUR IRR
'they are cleaning away grass' (HT-3-1>00:07:51)

c. *ma=la* *nün=pan*
NEG=AUX sting:3.PL=PLUR

pahal *la* *la-s=pan* *muekh* *huph*
very AUX bite:3.PL-?=PLUR MUEKH 3.PL
'they do not sting, but they really bite' (HT-7-1>00:04:03)

In these examples *=pan* is added as an enclitic to the right edge of the verb phrase to indicate that an action not only takes place in a single place and not just one time; instead it is an action that must be repeated several times and by several S/A arguments, in order to achieve its intended goal, as when one goes hunting (71a), as when a machete is used for cutting grass (71b), and in as when a swarm of bees bite a person several times (71c).

4.7.3 Imperfective past and irrealis =*cha*

A commonly occurring grammatical element, mostly found at the right edge of predicates, is *cha.* It has earlier been analyzed by Holt as an imperfect suffix but was only dealt with in the briefest terms possible: "The imperfect-suffix -*cha* can apparently be added to any present-tense verb-form (?); e.g. *hák-cha* 's/he came'; *hós-cha* 's/he wanted'." (1999: 30). Holt is unsure about his analysis, as indicated by the question mark in the above quotation, and for good reason, because =*cha* is not confined to verbs. This is true even in Holt's own data, as *hos* 'his/her heart' is morphologically nominal in spite of acting as a predicate meaning 'want'. Some additional examples are shown in (72).

(72) a. *naph* *la* *the-pyal=**cha***
1.SG AUX PST-seek:1.SG=IPFV
'I was looking for him' (field notes)

b. *David* *hépa=**cha*** *huph* *Israel* *mo'ó* *püná*
D. king=IPFV 3.SG I. in long.ago
'David was king of Israel long ago' (Mateo 1:6)

c. *'üsüs=**cha*** *pahal* *huph* *the-velá*
good=IPFV most 3.SG PST-speak:3.SG
'he spoke the best (that anyone has ever spoken)' (Juan 7:46)

d. *niná* *botella pe* *mpes=**cha***
DEM bottle stone from=IPFV
'the bottle was made from stone' (Mateo 26:7)

Given that it can attach to all parts of speech, =*cha* should more appropriately be analyzed as a clitic which can be placed on the part of speech that the speaker chooses to emphasize. It is thus not part of a paradigm where an obligatory choice must be made to the exclusion of the remaining members.

There is a strong tendency for =*cha* to be used with the an imperfective past meaning as we have seen in the above examples. There is, however, substantial evidence that this is not its only function, as shown in (73).

(73) a. *naph* *ka* *kusku* *velel=**cha*** *woway*
1.SG IRR say speak:1.SG=IRR child
'I would have scolded the child' (field notes)

b. *nin* *nakh* *po* *yuph* *'u-kul=**cha***
thus exist:doubt EMPH 3.PL come:3.pl=irr
'may they come!' (fieldnotes)

c. *ma=sele=**cha*** *chan* *ora* *hak'=**cha*** *pwekeph*
NEG=know:3SG=IRR what time come:3SG=IRR thief
'he doesn't know what time the theif will come' (Mateo 24:43)

In the above examples *=cha* is used to encode irrealis expressed as past conditional (73a), hortative mood (73b) and doubt modality (73c) respectively. The question that then presents itself is whether these are alternate meanings in addition to the imperfective meaning we saw above, or whether we need to revise the analysis of *=cha* to a single function that entails all of the above examples. A quick survey of the typological literature reveals that the use of imperfective past to express counterfactuality is not uncommon cross-linguistically. The use of imperfective past marking in Slavic languages to express 'would have' is a case in point – such alternate uses have been called 'fake imperfective' (Iatridou 2000; Grønn 2013). In English and other Germanic languages we find perfective past constructions expressing counterfactuality as in the conditional *if you had told me, I would have come*. Similarly, English plural past copula *were* is used to mark subjunctive as in *I wish you were here*.

5 Conclusion

In the present chapter we have intended to provide a brief sketch of Tol with particular focus on areas, which have previously received little or no attention. We have ...

An overview of typological features of Tol are given in Table 7.

Table 7: Typological features of Tol.

Category	**Structural feature**	**Function**
Possession	Nominal pre- and infixation	Person and number of possessor
Core arguments	Verbal pre-, in- and suffixation	Person and number of S/A argument P argument not indexed on verb
Oblique arguments	Postpositions	Introducing oblique arguments
Gender	NA	NA
Nominal number	Prefix, enclitic or particle	Number of animate entities of NP
Verbal number	Enclitic	Pluractional or distributive
Tense-aspect	Clitics, prefixes and non-	Future, past, perfective

	linear marking	
Alignment	Accusative	Verb marking, no case marking
Focus/ topic	Nominal suffix	Discoursive prominence
Plosive contrasts	Three way: plain / aspirated / glottalized	Phonologically distinctive
Constituent order	SOV / right-headed	Unmarked constituent order. Right headed subordinate clauses. Postpositional phrases.

Future research should ...

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